

Continuous Convergence and Curried Functional Spaces

1. Preliminary definitions

1.1. The language of filters

Definition 1.1.1. Let X be a set. A *filter* on X is a non-empty set $F \subset 2^X$ which is closed under supersets and finite intersections, and does not contain the empty set. The set of all filters on X will be denoted by $\mathcal{F}(X)$.

Definition 1.1.2. Let X be a set. A family $\mathcal{B} \subset 2^X$ is called a *filter base* if it does not contain the empty set and is closed under finite intersection. The filter $[\mathcal{B}]$ generated by $\mathcal{B}$ is defined as the collection of all supersets of sets from $\mathcal{B}$.

If $\mathcal{B} = \{\{x\}\}$ where $x \in X$, the filter $[x] = [\{\{x\}\}]$ is called the *universal filter* of x .

If $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is a map and $F \in \mathcal{F}(X)$ is a filter on X , then $\{f(A) \mid A \in F\}$ is a filter base that generates the *image filter* denoted $f(F)$.

Definition 1.1.3. Let X be a topological space. Then we say that a filter F on X *converges* to a point $x \in X$, and write $F \rightarrow x$, if it contains all open neighborhoods of x .

Remark 1.1.1. The language of filters is expressive enough to encode all topological properties. For example [1]:

- A sequence $\{x_n\}_{n=1}^{\infty}$ converges to a point $x \in X$ iff the filter

$$F = \{A \subset X \mid x_n \in A \text{ for all but finitely many } n\}$$

converges to x . This filter F is called the *derived filter* of $\{x_n\}_{n=1}^{\infty}$.

- A subset $E \subset X$ is closed if for every point $x \in E$ there is a filter $F \in \mathcal{F}(X)$ converging to x such that $A \cap E \neq \emptyset$ for all $A \in F$.
- A topological space X is compact iff every filter F on X is contained in a convergent filter on X .
- A function $f : X \rightarrow Y$ between topological spaces is continuous iff it preserves convergent filters, i.e. $F \rightarrow x \in X$ implies $f(F) \rightarrow f(x) \in Y$.

Lemma 1.1.1. (see [1], page 74): Let X be a set and $f_i : X \rightarrow Y_i$ be a family of maps, where Y_i are topological spaces. Let X be endowed with the coarsest topology such that f_i is continuous for each i . Then a filter $F \in \mathcal{F}(X)$ converges to $x \in X$ if and only if $f_i(F)$ converges to $f_i(x)$ for all i .

1.2. The topology of pointwise convergence

Definition 1.2.1. (pointwise convergence topology, see [2]): Let X be a set, Y a topological space, and denote by $\mathcal{S}(X, Y)$ the set of functions from X to Y . For each $x \in X$ and each open set $U \subset Y$, let $V(x, U)$ be the set of all functions $f \in \mathcal{S}(X, Y)$ such that $f(x) \in U$. The collection

$$\{V(x, U) \mid x \in X, U \subset Y\}$$

forms a subbase of a topology on $\mathcal{S}(X, Y)$, called the *topology of pointwise convergence*.

Remark 1.2.1. Let X be a set and Y a topological space. It is not hard to see that a filter $F \in \mathcal{F}(\mathcal{S}(X, Y))$ converges to a function $f \in \mathcal{S}(X, Y)$ if and only if, for any $x \in X$, the filter $F(x) = [\{A(x) \mid A \in F\}]$ converges to $f(x) \in Y$.

Lemma 1.2.1. Let X be a set and Y a Hausdorff topological space. Then $\mathcal{S}(X, Y)$ is also Hausdorff.

Proof: Consider two functions $f, g \in \mathcal{S}(X, Y)$ such that $f \neq g$. This implies that there is $x_0 \in X$ such that $f(x_0) \neq g(x_0)$. Since Y is Hausdorff, there are neighborhoods $U_f \ni f(x_0)$ and $U_g \ni g(x_0)$ such that $U_f \cap U_g = \emptyset$. It then follows that $f \in V(x_0, U_f)$, $g \in V(x_0, U_g)$, and $V(x_0, U_f) \cap V(x_0, U_g) = \emptyset$. ■

Lemma 1.2.2. Let X be a set and let Y be a real topological vector space. Then $\mathcal{S}(X, Y)$ is also a real topological vector space with respect to the topology of pointwise convergence and the pointwise linear structure.

Proof: We need to show that the maps $+: \mathcal{S}(X, Y) \times \mathcal{S}(X, Y) \rightarrow \mathcal{S}(X, Y)$ and $\cdot: \mathbb{R} \times \mathcal{S}(X, Y) \rightarrow \mathcal{S}(X, Y)$ are continuous.

To begin, consider two filters $F_1, F_2 \in \mathcal{F}(\mathcal{S}(X, Y))$, converging to f_1 and f_2 respectively.

To show that $F_1 + F_2$ converges to $f_1 + f_2$, consider $x \in X$. We have

$$\begin{aligned} (F_1 + F_2)(x) &= [\{(A + B)(x) \mid A \in F_1, B \in F_2\}] \\ &= [\{A(x) + B(x) \mid A \in F_1, B \in F_2\}] \\ &= F_1(x) + F_2(x) \rightarrow f_1(x) + f_2(x) = (f_1 + f_2)(x). \end{aligned}$$

This shows that the addition operation is continuous. Scalar multiplication is continuous by a similar argument. ■

1.3. The compact-open topology

Definition 1.3.1. (compact-open topology, see [2]): Let X and Y be two topological spaces, and by $\mathcal{C}(X, Y)$ denote the set of all continuous functions from X to Y . For each compact set $K \subset X$ and each open set $U \subset Y$, let $V(K, U)$ be the set of all functions $f \in \mathcal{C}(X, Y)$ such that $f(K) \subset U$. The collection

$$\{V(K, U) \mid K \subset X, U \subset Y\}$$

forms a subbase of a topology on $\mathcal{C}(X, Y)$, called the *compact-open topology*.

Remark 1.3.1. Clearly, the topology of pointwise convergence on $\mathcal{C}(X, Y)$ is coarser than the compact-open topology.

Proposition 1.3.1. (see [3]): Let X and Y be topological spaces such that X is locally compact and Y is regular. Then a filter $F \in \mathcal{F}(\mathcal{C}(X, Y))$ converges to a function $f \in \mathcal{C}(X, Y)$ if and only if, for any filter $P \in \mathcal{F}(X)$ converging to $p \in X$, we have $F(P) \rightarrow f(p)$ in Y , where the filter $F(P)$ is based on

$$\{A(B) \mid A \in F, B \in P\} = \{\{a(b) \mid a \in A, b \in B\} \mid A \in F, B \in P\}.$$

Proposition 1.3.2. (see [2], page 302): *Let X, Y, Z be topological spaces such that X is Hausdorff and Y is locally compact. Then the map*

$$\gamma : \mathcal{C}(X \times Y, Z) \rightarrow \mathcal{C}(X, \mathcal{C}(Y, Z))$$

defined as $\gamma(f)(x)(y) = f(x, y)$, is well-defined and is a homeomorphism.

Lemma 1.3.1. *Let X, Y be topological spaces such that Y is Hausdorff. Then the space $\mathcal{C}(X, Y)$ is also Hausdorff.*

Proof: The compact-open topology on $\mathcal{C}(X, Y)$ is finer than the topology of pointwise convergence, and the latter is Hausdorff, which implies that the former is Hausdorff. ■

Lemma 1.3.2. *Let X be a topological space and Y a real topological vector space. Then $\mathcal{C}(X, Y)$ is also a real topological vector space with respect to the pointwise linear structure and the compact-open topology.*

Proof: We will show that the map $+$: $\mathcal{C}(X, Y) \times \mathcal{C}(X, Y) \rightarrow \mathcal{C}(X, Y)$ is continuous. Let $F_1, F_2 \in \mathcal{F}(\mathcal{C}(X, Y))$ converge to $f_1 \in \mathcal{C}(X, Y)$ and $f_2 \in \mathcal{C}(X, Y)$ respectively. For any filter $P \in \mathcal{F}(X)$ converging to $p \in X$, we have

$$\begin{aligned} (F_1 + F_2)(P) &= [\{(A_1 + A_2)(B) \mid A_i \in F_i, B \in P\}] \\ &\supset [\{A_1(B_1) + A_2(B_2) \mid A_i \in F_i, B_i \in P\}] \\ &= F_1(P) + F_2(P) \rightarrow f_1(p) + f_2(p) = (f_1 + f_2)(p). \end{aligned}$$

The continuity of scalar multiplication is proven similarly. ■

Lemma 1.3.3. *Let X, Y be topological spaces such that X is first countable. Then a sequence $\{f_k\}_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \subset \mathcal{C}(X, Y)$ converges to a function $f \in \mathcal{C}(X, Y)$ if and only if $f_k(x_k) \xrightarrow[k \rightarrow \infty]{} f(x)$ whenever $x_k \xrightarrow[k \rightarrow \infty]{} x$ in X .*

Proof: First, let F be the derived filter of $\{f_k\}_{k \in \mathbb{N}}$ and suppose that F converges to a function $f \in \mathcal{C}(X, Y)$. Consider a sequence $\{x_k\}_{k \in \mathbb{N}}$ converging to $x \in X$, with its derived filter P . Now let V be a neighborhood of $f(x)$ in Y . By the definition of continuous convergence, we have $F(P) \rightarrow f(x)$, and so $V \in F(P)$. This means that V contains an element of the base of $F(P)$, namely a set

$$B_{n_0, m_0} = \{f_n(x_m) \mid n \geq n_0, m \geq m_0\}.$$

Hence, for $k \geq \max(n_0, m_0)$, we have $f_k(x_k) \in V$, as desired.

Conversely, suppose that $f_k(x_k) \xrightarrow[k \rightarrow \infty]{} f(x)$ whenever $x_k \xrightarrow[k \rightarrow \infty]{} x \in X$. First let us show that for any subsequence $\{f_{n_k}\}_{k \in \mathbb{N}}$, we have $f_{n_k}(x_k) \xrightarrow[k \rightarrow \infty]{} f(x)$.

To this end, let $n \in \mathbb{N}$. We let $z_n = x_{\varphi(n)}$, where $\varphi(n)$ is the minimal number of those $k \in \mathbb{N}$ that satisfy $n \leq n_k$. We clearly see that $n_1 \geq n_2$ implies $\varphi(n_1) \geq \varphi(n_2)$ and that $\varphi(n_k) = k$ for all $k \in \mathbb{N}$. Therefore, the sequence $\{z_n\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$ converges to x . Hence we have $f_k(z_k) \xrightarrow[k \rightarrow \infty]{} f(x)$, and so

$$f_{n_k}(x_k) = f_{n_k}(z_{n_k}) \xrightarrow[k \rightarrow \infty]{} f(x). \quad (1)$$

Now, to show that $f_k \rightarrow f$ in $\mathcal{C}(X, Y)$, we need to show that the derived filter F generated by the sets $C_n = \{f_k \mid k \geq n\}$ converges to f . To this end, let P be a filter in

X converging to a point $x \in X$. Note that since X is first countable, the filter P has a countable base $\{A_m\}_{m \in \mathbb{N}}$ of neighborhoods of x . To show that $F(P)$ converges to $f(x)$, assume the contrary. Then some neighborhood V of $f(x)$ does not lie in $F(P)$, which is to say that for all $n, m \in \mathbb{N}$, we have $C_n(A_m) \not\subset V$. That means that for all $n, m \in \mathbb{N}$, there are $k_m \geq m$ and $x_m \in A_m$ such that $f_{k_m}(x_m) \notin V$. In particular, we have $f_{k_n}(x_n) \notin V$ for all $n \in \mathbb{N}$. At the same time, since the sets A_n generate P , we see that $x_n \xrightarrow{n \rightarrow \infty} x$, so we must have $f_{k_n}(x_n) \xrightarrow{n \rightarrow \infty} f(x)$ by (1), a contradiction. ■

2. The spaces of curried functions

2.1. General functions

Definition 2.1.1. Let $n \in \mathbb{N}_0 = \{0, 1, 2, \dots\}$. The set $H_n(\mathbb{R})$ of *curried n -variable functions* is a topological vector space defined recursively as follows:

- If $n = 0$, we set $H_0(\mathbb{R}) = \mathbb{R}$;
- If $H_n(\mathbb{R})$ is defined, we let $H_{n+1}(\mathbb{R})$ to be the set of all functions from $\mathbb{R}$ to $H_n(\mathbb{R})$. This set is given the pointwise linear structure and the topology of pointwise convergence. Lemma 1.2.1 and Lemma 1.2.2 ensure that $H_{n+1}(\mathbb{R})$ is a Hausdorff topological vector space.

Definition 2.1.2. Let $\tilde{f} : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a function. Define

$$\gamma(\tilde{f})(x_1)(x_2)\dots(x_n) = \tilde{f}(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n).$$

Then $\gamma : \text{Hom}(\mathbb{R}^n, \mathbb{R}) \rightarrow H_n(\mathbb{R})$ is clearly a bijection. The function $f = \gamma(\tilde{f})$ will be called the *curried version* of $\tilde{f}$.

Lemma 2.1.1. For every $n \in \mathbb{N}_0$, the space $H_n(\mathbb{R})$ is locally compact.

| *Proof:* An easy proof by induction over n . ■

2.2. Continuous functions

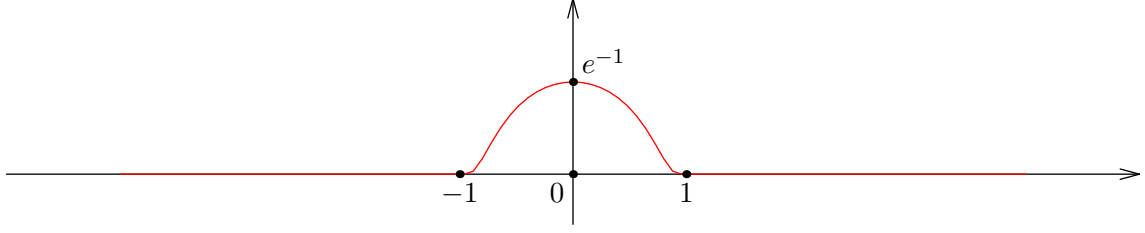
Definition 2.2.1. Let $n \in \mathbb{N}_0$. The set $C_n(\mathbb{R})$ of *curried continuous functions* is a Hausdorff topological vector space defined recursively as follows:

- If $n = 0$, we set $C_0(\mathbb{R}) = \mathbb{R}$.
- If $C_n(\mathbb{R})$ is defined, we set $C_{n+1}(\mathbb{R}) = \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, C_n(\mathbb{R}))$, endowed with pointwise linear structure and the compact-open topology. Lemma 1.3.1 and Lemma 1.3.2 ensure that $C_{n+1}(\mathbb{R})$ is a Hausdorff topological vector space, provided that $C_n(\mathbb{R})$ is.

Example 2.2.1. The topology on $C_n(\mathbb{R})$ is finer than the topology induced from $H_n(\mathbb{R})$, and does not coincide with it, unless $n = 0$. To see this, take $n = 1$ and consider the classical function

$$\varphi(x) = \begin{cases} \exp\left(\frac{1}{|x|^2-1}\right), & |x| < 1 \\ 0, & |x| \geq 1. \end{cases}$$

This is a $C^\infty(\mathbb{R})$ function supported on $[-1, 1]$. Its graph looks as follows:



Now consider the following sequence of functions:

$$f_k(x) = e \cdot \varphi\left(k \cdot \left(x - \frac{1}{k}\right)\right).$$

Clearly, f_k is infinitely differentiable on $\mathbb{R}$, supported on $[0, 2/k]$, and has a maximum at $x = 1/k$ with $f_k(1/k) = 1$. It is clear that for all $x \in \mathbb{R}$, we have $f_k(x) \xrightarrow[k \rightarrow \infty]{} 0$, so $f_k \rightarrow 0$ in the topology induced from $H_1(\mathbb{R})$. However, f_k do not converge to 0 in the native topology of $C_1(\mathbb{R})$. To see this, take $x_k = 1/k$ and observe that $f_k(x_k) \equiv 1 \neq 0$.

A similar argument applies for any other $n \geq 2$. Hence we conclude that $C_n(\mathbb{R})$ is not a subspace of $H_n(\mathbb{R})$.

Proposition 2.2.1. *Let $n \in \mathbb{N}_0$. Then the map*

$$\gamma : \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}^n, \mathbb{R}) \rightarrow C_n(\mathbb{R})$$

defined by $\gamma(f)(x_1)(x_2)\dots(x_n) = f(x_1, \dots, x_n)$, is well-defined and is a homeomorphism.

Proof: If $n = 0$, the statement is trivial. Assume it is proven for $C_n(\mathbb{R})$. By Proposition 1.3.2, we have

$$\mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}^{n+1}, \mathbb{R}) = \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R} \times \mathbb{R}^n, \mathbb{R}) \cong \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}^n, \mathbb{R})) \cong \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, C_n(\mathbb{R})) = C_{n+1}(\mathbb{R}),$$

q.e.d. ■

Lemma 2.2.1. *For every $n \in \mathbb{N}_0$, the space $C_n(\mathbb{R})$ is locally compact.*

| *Proof:* An easy proof by induction over n . ■

2.3. Differentiable functions

Definition 2.3.1. Let $m \in \mathbb{N}_0$ and $n \in \mathbb{N}_0$. The set $D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$ of *curried m times differentiable functions* is a topological space defined recursively as follows:

- If $n = 0$, we set $D_0^m(\mathbb{R}) = \mathbb{R}$ for all m , as usual;
- If $m = 0$, we set $D_n^0(\mathbb{R}) = C_n(\mathbb{R})$;
- Let $m, n > 0$, and assume that both $D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R})$ and $D_n^{m-1}(\mathbb{R})$ are defined. Then we let $D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$ be the set of all functions $f \in \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R}))$ such that there is a function $f' \in D_n^{m-1}(\mathbb{R})$ which satisfies

$$\frac{f(x+h) - f(x)}{h} \xrightarrow[h \rightarrow 0]{} f'(x) \in H_{n-1}(\mathbb{R})$$

for all $x \in \mathbb{R}$, where **the convergence is taken in the space $H_{n-1}(\mathbb{R})$** . Clearly, if $f, g \in D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$ and $\alpha, \beta \in \mathbb{R}$, we have

$$(\alpha f + \beta g)' = \alpha f' + \beta g',$$

so in particular, $\alpha f + \beta g \in D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$.

We endow $D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$ with the coarsest topology in which the maps

$$\begin{aligned} i : D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) &\rightarrow \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R})), & d : D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) &\rightarrow D_n^{m-1}(\mathbb{R}) \\ f &\mapsto f & f &\mapsto f' \end{aligned} \quad (2)$$

are continuous. This topology will be called the *differential topology of order m* . We prove below that $D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$ are Hausdorff topological vector spaces.

Lemma 2.3.1. *For all $m, n \in \mathbb{N}_0$, we have $D_n^{m+1}(\mathbb{R}) \subset D_n^m$, and the inclusion map*

$$j : D_n^{m+1}(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$$

is continuous, meaning that the topology on $D_n^{m+1}(\mathbb{R})$ is finer than the topology induced from $D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$.

Proof: We prove by induction over n . Consider the following cases:

1. $n = 0$. Then we have $D_0^{m+1}(\mathbb{R}) = D_0^n(\mathbb{R}) = \mathbb{R}$, and the statement holds;
2. $m = 0$. Then we have

$$D_n^1(\mathbb{R}) \subset \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-1}^0(\mathbb{R})) = \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, C_{n-1}(\mathbb{R})) = C_n(\mathbb{R}) = D_n^0(\mathbb{R}),$$

and the inclusion is continuous by the definition of differential topology.

3. $n, m > 0$, with the statement proven for $(m, n-1)$ and $(m-1, n)$. Let $f \in D_n^{m+1}(\mathbb{R})$. Then we have

$$f \in \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-1}^{m+1}(\mathbb{R})) \subset \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R})).$$

Moreover, since $f' \in D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) \subset D_n^{m-1}(\mathbb{R})$, we see that $f \in D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$ by definition, so we have the inclusion $D_n^{m+1}(\mathbb{R}) \subset D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$. It only remains to show that the inclusion map $j : D_n^{m+1}(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$ is continuous. This is equivalent to showing that the maps $i \circ j$ and $d \circ j$ are continuous, which is evident from the following commutative diagrams:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} D_n^{m+1}(\mathbb{R}) & \xrightarrow{j} & D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) \\ i \downarrow & & \downarrow i \\ \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-1}^{m+1}(\mathbb{R})) & \xrightarrow{j} & \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R})) \end{array} \quad \begin{array}{ccc} D_n^{m+1}(\mathbb{R}) & \xrightarrow{j} & D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) \\ d \downarrow & & \downarrow d \\ D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) & \xrightarrow{j} & D_n^{m-1}(\mathbb{R}) \end{array}$$

Corollary 2.3.1. *We have a chain of subspaces with each topology finer than the previous one:*

$$C_n(\mathbb{R}) = D_n^0(\mathbb{R}) \xleftarrow{j} D_n^1(\mathbb{R}) \xleftarrow{j} D_n^2(\mathbb{R}) \xleftarrow{j} D_n^3(\mathbb{R}) \xleftarrow{j} \dots$$

Lemma 2.3.2. *For all $n, m \in \mathbb{N}_0$, the topological space $D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$ is Hausdorff.*

Proof: Since $C_n(\mathbb{R})$ is Hausdorff and $i : D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow C_n(\mathbb{R})$ is continuous and injective, we see that $D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$ is also Hausdorff. ■

Lemma 2.3.3. *For all $m, n \in \mathbb{N}_0$, the pointwise linear structure is compatible with the topology on $D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$, making $D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$ a topological vector space.*

Proof: We prove by induction over n and m . If $n = 0$, we have $D_0(\mathbb{R}) = \mathbb{R}$ with the usual topology and linear structure. If $m = 0$, we have $D_n^0(\mathbb{R}) = C_n(\mathbb{R})$, which is a TVS. Suppose now that $m, n > 0$. We need to establish the continuity of the following two maps:

$$+ : D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) \times D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow D_n^m(\mathbb{R}), \quad \cdot : \mathbb{R} \times D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow D_n^m(\mathbb{R}).$$

In turn, by the definition of the differential topology, this task is equivalent to proving that the maps $i \circ (+), d \circ (+), i \circ (\cdot), d \circ (\cdot)$ are continuous, where the maps i and d are defined in (2).

To this end, note that we have commutative diagrams

$$\begin{array}{ccc} D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) \times D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) & \xrightarrow{(+)} & D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) \\ i \times i \downarrow & & \downarrow i \\ \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R})) \times \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R})) & \xrightarrow{(+)} & \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R})) \end{array}$$

$$\begin{array}{ccc} D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) \times D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) & \xrightarrow{(+)} & D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) \\ d \times d \downarrow & & \downarrow d \\ D_n^{m-1}(\mathbb{R}) \times D_n^{m-1}(\mathbb{R}) & \xrightarrow{(+)} & D_n^{m-1}(\mathbb{R}) \end{array}$$

$$\begin{array}{ccc} \mathbb{R} \times D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) & \xrightarrow{(\cdot)} & D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) \\ \text{id} \times i \downarrow & & \downarrow i \\ \mathbb{R} \times \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R})) & \xrightarrow{(\cdot)} & \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R})) \end{array}$$

$$\begin{array}{ccc} \mathbb{R} \times D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) & \xrightarrow{(\cdot)} & D_n^m(\mathbb{R}) \\ \text{id} \times d \downarrow & & \downarrow d \\ \mathbb{R} \times D_n^{m-1}(\mathbb{R}) & \xrightarrow{(\cdot)} & D_n^{m-1}(\mathbb{R}) \end{array}$$

Since the down-then-right path in each diagram is continuous, the right-then-down paths are continuous as well, and we are done. ■

Theorem 2.3.1. *Let $m, n \in \mathbb{N}$. A curried function $f \in H_n(\mathbb{R})$ lies in the class $D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$ if and only if its counterpart $\tilde{f} : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ has continuous partial derivatives on $\mathbb{R}^n$, of all orders up to m . Moreover, for each $1 \leq i_1 \leq i_2 \leq \dots \leq i_m \leq n$, we have*

$$\begin{aligned} & \frac{\partial^m \tilde{f}}{\partial x_{i_1} \partial x_{i_2} \dots \partial x_{i_m}}(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n) \\ &= f(x_1) \dots (x_{i_1-1})' (x_{i_1}) \dots (x_{i_2-1})' (x_{i_2}) \dots (x_{i_m-1})' (x_{i_m}) \dots (x_n). \end{aligned} \quad (3)$$

Proof: If $n = 0$ or $m = 0$, the statement is trivial. Now let $n, m > 0$ and assume the statement proven for $(m, n - 1)$ and $(m - 1, n)$.

First, let $f \in D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$. We immediately see that $f \in D_n^{m-1}(\mathbb{R})$, and so, by the induction hypothesis, partial derivatives of order up to $m - 1$ exist and are continuous on $\mathbb{R}^n$. Now, consider some $1 \leq i_1 \leq i_2 \leq \dots \leq i_m \leq n$. It is not hard to see by definition that (3) holds. To show that the partial derivative with respect to $x_{i_1}, \dots, x_{i_m}$ is continuous, consider $(h_1, h_2, \dots, h_n) \rightarrow 0 \in \mathbb{R}^n$, and a point $(x_1, \dots, x_n) \in \mathbb{R}^n$. By the continuity of f and the definition of the differential topology, we have

$$\begin{aligned} f(x_1 + h_1) &\xrightarrow{h_1 \rightarrow 0} f(x_1) \in D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R}), \\ &\vdots \\ f(x_1 + h_1) \dots (x_{i_1-1} + h_{i_1-1})' &\xrightarrow{h_1, \dots, h_{i_1-1} \rightarrow 0} f(x_1) \dots (x_{i_1-1})' \in D_{n-i_1+1}^{m-1}(\mathbb{R}), \\ &\vdots \\ f(x_1 + h_1) \dots (x_{i_1-1} + h_{i_1-1})' \dots (x_{i_m-1} + h_{i_m-1}) \dots (x_n + h_n) & \\ \xrightarrow{h_1, h_2, \dots, h_n \rightarrow 0} f(x_1) \dots (x_{i_1-1})' \dots (x_{i_m-1})' \dots (x_n) &\in D_0^0(\mathbb{R}) = \mathbb{R}, \end{aligned}$$

so the partial derivative

$$\frac{\partial^m \tilde{f}}{\partial x_{i_1} \partial x_{i_2} \dots \partial x_{i_m}}$$

is continuous on $\mathbb{R}^n$.

Conversely, suppose $f \in H_n(\mathbb{R})$ is such that $\tilde{f} : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ lies in the class $C^m(\mathbb{R}^n)$. To show that $f \in D_n^m(\mathbb{R})$, we follow three steps:

1. For all $x_1 \in \mathbb{R}$, we have $f(x_1) \in D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R})$. This is provided by the induction hypothesis, since the restriction of a C^m function on a hyperplane is also a C^m function.
2. The function $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R})$ is continuous. To show this, consider a sequence $\{x_k^{(1)}\}_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \subset \mathbb{R}$ converging to $x_0^{(1)} \in \mathbb{R}$. We aim to prove that $f(x_k^{(1)}) \rightarrow f(x_0^{(1)})$ in $D_{n-1}^m(\mathbb{R})$. This is equivalent to showing that

$$f(x_k^{(1)}) \rightarrow f(x_0^{(1)}) \in \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-2}^m(\mathbb{R})) \quad \text{and} \quad f(x_k^{(1)})' \rightarrow f(x_0^{(1)})' \in D_{n-1}^{m-1}(\mathbb{R}). \quad (4)$$

The latter of these conditions holds by the induction hypothesis, since

$$\frac{\partial \tilde{f}}{\partial x_2}(x_1, \dots, x_n) = \frac{\partial \widetilde{f(x_1)}}{\partial x_2}(x_2, \dots, x_n) \stackrel{\text{by (3)}}{=} f(x_1)'(x_2) \dots (x_n), \quad (5)$$

and $\partial \tilde{f} / \partial x_2$ is continuous, which means that the map $x \mapsto f(x)'$ is continuous. To prove the former condition in (4), we again consider a sequence $x_k^{(2)} \rightarrow x_0^{(2)} \in \mathbb{R}$ and aim to prove

$$f(x_k^{(1)})(x_k^{(2)}) \rightarrow f(x_0^{(1)})(x_0^{(2)}) \in D_{n-2}(\mathbb{R}),$$

which (unless $n = 2$) is again equivalent to

$$f\left(x_k^{(1)}\right)\left(x_k^{(2)}\right) \rightarrow f\left(x_k^{(1)}\right)\left(x_k^{(2)}\right) \quad \text{and} \quad f\left(x_k^{(1)}\right)\left(x_k^{(2)}\right)' \rightarrow f\left(x_0^{(1)}\right)\left(x_0^{(2)}\right)'.$$

The latter follows from the induction hypothesis and the continuity of $\partial \tilde{f} / \partial x_3$, similarly to (5), and the former can again be expanded further. This chain leads us finally to the convergence

$$f\left(x_k^{(1)}\right)\left(x_k^{(2)}\right) \dots \left(x_k^{(n)}\right) \rightarrow f\left(x_0^{(1)}\right)\left(x_0^{(2)}\right) \dots \left(x_0^{(n)}\right) \in \mathbb{R},$$

which is evident since $f \in C_n(\mathbb{R})$ by Proposition 2.2.1. Hence we see that f lies in $\mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R}, D_{n-1}(\mathbb{R}))$. We have also established (3) for f and $i \geq 2$, via (5).

3. Finally, we need to find $f' \in D_n^{m-1}(\mathbb{R})$ such that

$$\frac{f(x+h) - f(x)}{h} \xrightarrow{h \rightarrow 0} f'(x) \in H_{n-1}(\mathbb{R}) \quad (6)$$

for all $x \in \mathbb{R}$. Indeed, following (3), let us define $f' := \gamma(\partial \tilde{f} / \partial x_1)$. We immediately see by the induction hypothesis that f' so defined lies in $D_n^{m-1}(\mathbb{R})$. To see that (6) holds, consider $x_1, \dots, x_n \in \mathbb{R}$ and write

$$\begin{aligned} f'(x_1)(x_2) \dots (x_n) &= \frac{\partial \tilde{f}}{\partial x_1}(x_1, \dots, x_n) \\ &= \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{\tilde{f}(x_1 + h, x_2, \dots, x_n) - \tilde{f}(x_1, \dots, x_n)}{h} \\ &= \left(\lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(x_1 + h) - f(x_1)}{h} \right) (x_2) \dots (x_n), \end{aligned}$$

and we are done. ■

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